

Kernel Methods

Machine Learning – Foundations and Algorithms

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The “thing” about features

Good feature representations are typically very hard to find...

- **Polynomial features:**

- Number of features increases with $O(d^k)$, where d is dimensionality of data and k is degree of polynomial
- Can get very high feature value differences for large k

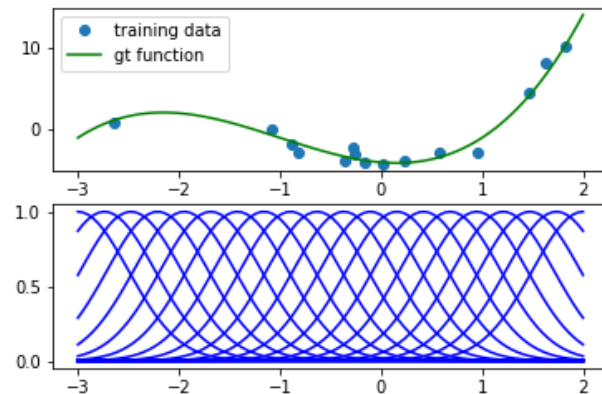
- **Radial basis function features:**

- Uniformly distribute Gaussian basis functions over the input space

$$\phi(\mathbf{x}) = [\phi_{\mu_1}(\mathbf{x}), \dots, \phi_{\mu_M}(\mathbf{x})]^T, \quad \phi_{\mu_i}(\mathbf{x}) = \exp\left(-\frac{\|\mathbf{x} - \mu_i\|^2}{2\sigma^2}\right)$$

$\mu_i \dots i^{\text{th}}$ center location (fixed) $\sigma^2 \dots$ bandwidth

- Number of basis functions scales exponentially with d
- Many basis functions located at irrelevant positions with no data



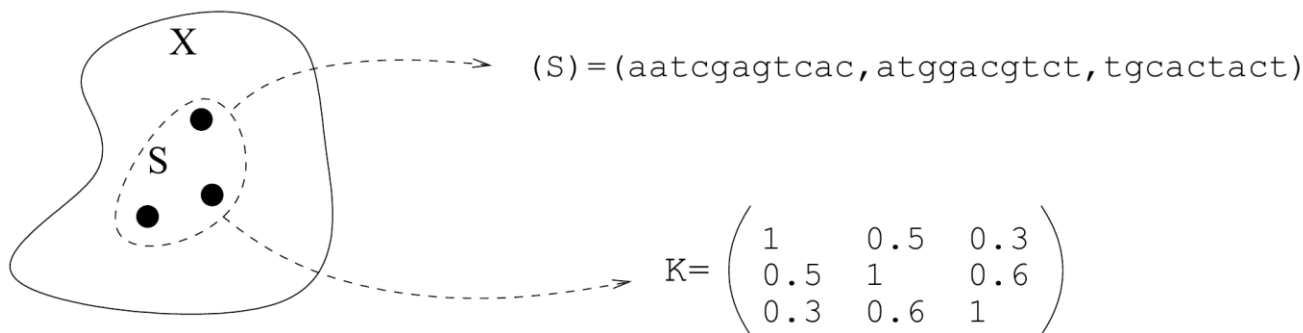
Kernels - Motivation

Can we find a more powerful representation for linear models?

- Yes! **Kernels!**
- They are more generic, scale better and adapt to the data set
- They still preserve simple linear computations

What is a kernel?

Representation by point-wise comparisons



- Define a “comparison function” $k : \mathcal{X} \times \mathcal{X} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$
- Represent a set of points $\mathcal{S} = \{\mathbf{x}_1, \dots, \mathbf{x}_n\}$ by **the $n \times n$ matrix** $[K]_{ij} = k(\mathbf{x}_i, \mathbf{x}_j)$

Kernel Matrix (aka Gram Matrix)

Properties:

- $\mathbf{K}$ is always an $n \times n$ matrix, whatever the nature of data: the same algorithm will work for any type of data (vectors, strings, ...).
- Total modularity between the choice of function k and the choice of the algorithm.
- Poor scalability with respect to the dataset size (n^2 to compute and store $\mathbf{K}$)...
- We will restrict ourselves to a particular class of pairwise comparison functions.

Positive definite kernels

A **positive definite kernel function** k is a function $k : \mathcal{X} \times \mathcal{X} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ that is:

(i) **Symmetric:** $\forall \mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}' : k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') = k(\mathbf{x}', \mathbf{x})$

(ii) **Similarity matrix is always positive semi-definite (psd)**

$$\mathbf{a}^T \mathbf{K} \mathbf{a} = \sum_{i=1}^n \sum_{j=1}^n a_i a_j k(\mathbf{x}_i, \mathbf{x}_j) \geq 0, \quad \forall \mathbf{a}, \forall S = \{\mathbf{x}_1, \dots, \mathbf{x}_n\}$$

- **Condition for psd matrices:** all eigenvalues ≥ 0

Kernel methods are algorithms that take such matrices as input.

Example: Linear kernel

The **linear kernel** is the simplest kernel for vectors

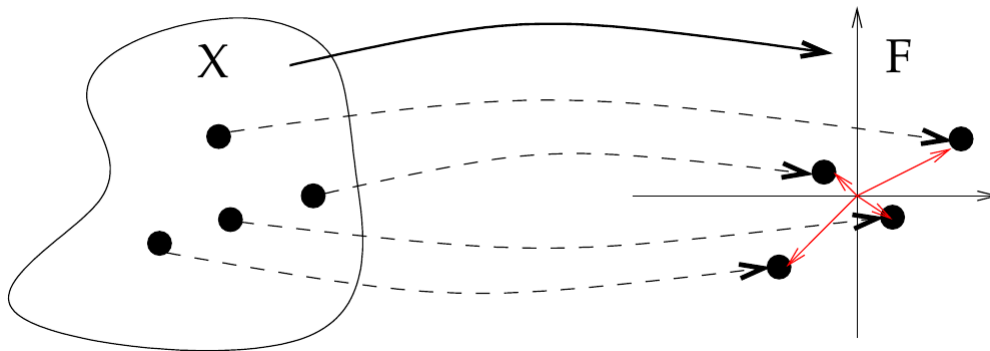
- Its defined by the scalar product:

$$k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') = \langle \mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}' \rangle, \quad \text{where } \langle \cdot, \cdot \rangle \text{ denotes the inner product}$$

- It is **always positive definite**:

$$\sum_{i=1}^n \sum_{j=1}^n a_i a_j \langle \mathbf{x}_i, \mathbf{x}_j \rangle = \left\| \sum_i a_i \mathbf{x}_i \right\|^2 \geq 0$$

Kernels in Feature Spaces



Let $\phi : \mathcal{X} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^d$ be an arbitrary **feature function**, then $k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') = \langle \phi(\mathbf{x}), \phi(\mathbf{x}') \rangle$ defines a **positive definite kernel**.

Proof:
$$\sum_{i=1}^n \sum_{j=1}^n a_i a_j \langle \phi(\mathbf{x}_i), \phi(\mathbf{x}_j) \rangle = \left\| \sum_i a_i \phi(\mathbf{x}_i) \right\|^2 \geq 0$$

Kernels as inner products

Theorem (Aransjan 1950):

k is a **positive semi-definite kernel** on the set $\mathcal{X}$ if and only if there exists a **feature space** $\mathcal{H}$ and a feature mapping

$$\phi : \mathcal{X} \rightarrow \mathcal{H}$$

such that for any $x, x' \in \mathcal{X}$:

$$k(x, x') = \langle \phi(x), \phi(x') \rangle$$

➤ **Every psd kernel comes with an associated feature space!**

Kernel Regression

- What is a kernel?
- Examples for kernels
- The kernel trick
- Kernel Ridge Regression

Example: polynomial kernel

For $\mathbf{x} = [x_1, x_2]^T$, let $\phi(\mathbf{x}) = [x_1^2, \sqrt{2}x_1x_2, x_2^2]$

The kernel is defined by:

$$\begin{aligned} k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') &= x_1^2 x_1'^2 + 2x_1x_2x_1'x_2' + x_2^2 x_2'^2 \\ &= (x_1x_1' + x_2x_2')^2 \\ &= \langle \mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}' \rangle^2 \end{aligned}$$

Kernel for polynomials of degree d:

$$k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') = \langle \mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}' \rangle^d$$

Example: Gaussian Kernel

The Gaussian kernel is defined by:

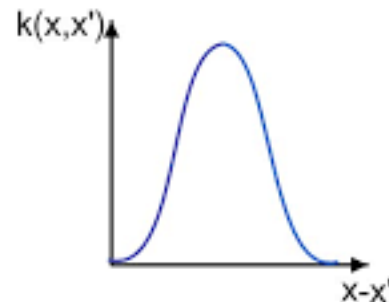
$$k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}) = \exp\left(-\frac{\|\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{y}\|^2}{2\sigma^2}\right)$$

- where σ is the bandwidth parameter

Often also called:

- Radial basis function kernel (RBF)
- Squared exponential kernel

It is the **most used kernel for kernel methods**



Is the Gaussian kernel a valid p.d. kernel?

Yes! It can be shown that the kernel is a valid product of two **infinite dimensional feature vectors**

- Consider the following feature function:

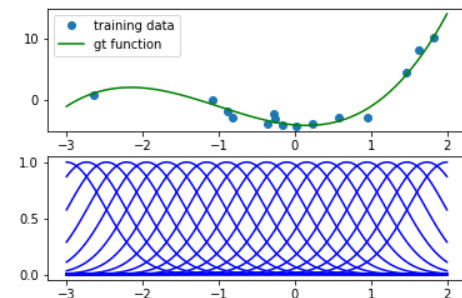
$$\phi_{\mu}(x) = 1/Z \exp\left(-\frac{\|x - \mu\|^2}{\sigma^2}\right), \quad \forall \mu \in \mathbb{R}^d$$

- I.e. we have an **infinite amount** of features (for every possible center μ)
- Z is a normalization constant (which we will ignore)

The Gaussian kernel can be computed as (not shown):

$$k(x, y) = \exp\left(-\frac{\|x - y\|^2}{2\sigma^2}\right) = \langle \phi_{\mu}(x), \phi_{\mu}(y) \rangle = \int \phi_{\mu}(x) \phi_{\mu}(y) d\mu$$

- Inner product becomes an integral** due to infinite amount of dimensions
- We **never have to represent these vectors** if we can directly compute their inner products



The Gaussian kernel would put a RBF center at every possible location

Kernel Regression

- What is a kernel?
- Examples for kernels
- The kernel trick
- Kernel Ridge Regression

Kernel Trick

So why do we do this?

- Kernels can be used for most feature based algorithms that can be rewritten such that they contain inner products of feature vectors
 - This is true for almost all feature based algorithms (Linear regression, Support Vector Machines, ...)
 - This is called the **Kernel Trick**
- Kernels can be used to map the data x in an **infinite dimensional feature** space (i.e., a function space)
 - The feature vector **never** has to be represented **explicitly**
 - As long as we can **evaluate the inner product** of two feature vectors
- Hence, we obtain a **more powerful representation** than standard linear feature models

A few kernel identities

Let $\Phi_X = \begin{bmatrix} \phi(\mathbf{x}_1)^T \\ \vdots \\ \phi(\mathbf{x}_N)^T \end{bmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{N \times d}$ then the following identities hold:

- **Kernel matrix:** $\mathbf{K} = \Phi_X \Phi_X^T$
 - Check: $[\mathbf{K}]_{ij} = \phi(\mathbf{x}_i)^T \phi(\mathbf{x}_j) = k(\mathbf{x}_i, \mathbf{x}_j)$
- **Kernel vector:** $\mathbf{k}(\mathbf{x}^*) = \begin{bmatrix} k(\mathbf{x}_1, \mathbf{x}^*) \\ \vdots \\ k(\mathbf{x}_N, \mathbf{x}^*) \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} \phi(\mathbf{x}_1)^T \phi(\mathbf{x}^*) \\ \vdots \\ \phi(\mathbf{x}_N)^T \phi(\mathbf{x}^*) \end{bmatrix} = \Phi_X \phi(\mathbf{x}^*)$

Kernel trick

Recap: Ridge Regression

- Squared error function + L2 regularization
- Linear feature space
- Not directly applicable in infinite dimensional feature spaces

Objective:

$$L_{\text{ridge}} = \underbrace{(\mathbf{y} - \Phi \mathbf{w})^T (\mathbf{y} - \Phi \mathbf{w})}_{\text{sum of squared errors}} + \lambda \underbrace{\mathbf{w}^T \mathbf{w}}_{L_2 \text{ regularization}}$$

Solution:

$$\mathbf{w}_{\text{ridge}}^* = \underbrace{(\Phi^T \Phi + \lambda \mathbf{I})^{-1}}_{d \times d \text{ matrix inversion}} \Phi^T \mathbf{y} \quad \text{Matrix inversion infeasible in infinite dimensions}$$

Kernel trick

We can apply the “kernel trick”:

- Rewrite solution as inner products of the feature space!
- We can do this by using the following matrix identity

$$(\lambda I + AB)^{-1}A = A(\lambda I + BA)^{-1}$$

– “Searle set of identities”, The Matrix Cookbook

$$w^* = \underbrace{(\Phi^T \Phi + \lambda I)^{-1}}_{d \times d \text{ matrix inversion}} \Phi^T y = \Phi^T \underbrace{(\Phi \Phi^T + \lambda I)^{-1}}_{N \times N \text{ matrix inversion}} y$$

– With $A = \Phi^T$ and $B = \Phi$

The „tale of the two Pseudo Inverse“

- **Two side inverse:** $A^{-1}A = I$, $AA^{-1} = I$
 - Standard matrix inversion... does often not exist
- **Left-Pseudo Inverse (see linear regression):**

$$A_{\text{left}}^{\dagger} = (A^T A)^{-1} A^T, \quad A_{\text{left}}^{\dagger} A = (A^T A)^{-1} A^T A = I$$

- **Right-Pseudo Inverse:**

$$A_{\text{right}}^{\dagger} = A^T (A A^T)^{-1}, \quad A A_{\text{right}}^{\dagger} = A A^T (A A^T)^{-1} = I$$

Difference: Size of the matrix that needs to be inverted

- For regularized version, both are mathematically (but not numerically) equivalent

$$(A^T A + \lambda I)^{-1} A^T = A^T (A A^T + \lambda I)^{-1}$$

Kernel Regression

- What is a kernel?
- Examples for kernels
- The kernel trick
- Kernel Ridge Regression

Kernel ridge regression

The “kernelized” solution is given by:

$$\mathbf{w}^* = \Phi^T \underbrace{(\Phi\Phi^T + \lambda I)^{-1}}_{N \times N \text{ matrix inversion}} \mathbf{y} = \Phi^T \underbrace{(K + \lambda I)^{-1} \mathbf{y}}_{\boldsymbol{\alpha}} = \Phi^T \boldsymbol{\alpha}_{1^{N \times 1}}$$

- Instead of inverting a $d \times d$ matrix, we can now invert an $N \times N$ matrix
- Is beneficial for $d \gg N$ (e.g., d is infinite)
- Still, $\mathbf{w}^* \in \mathbb{R}^d$ is potentially infinite dimensional and can not be represented

Yet, we can evaluate the function f that is specified by $\mathbf{w}^*$:

$$f(\mathbf{x}) = \phi(\mathbf{x})^T \mathbf{w}^* = \phi(\mathbf{x})^T \Phi^T \boldsymbol{\alpha} = \mathbf{k}(\mathbf{x})^T \boldsymbol{\alpha} = \sum_i \alpha_i k(\mathbf{x}_i, \mathbf{x})$$

- The function is evaluated by a weighted sum of kernel activations evaluated at the training data

Examples and comparison to RBF regression

For a Gaussian kernel, the prediction corresponds to

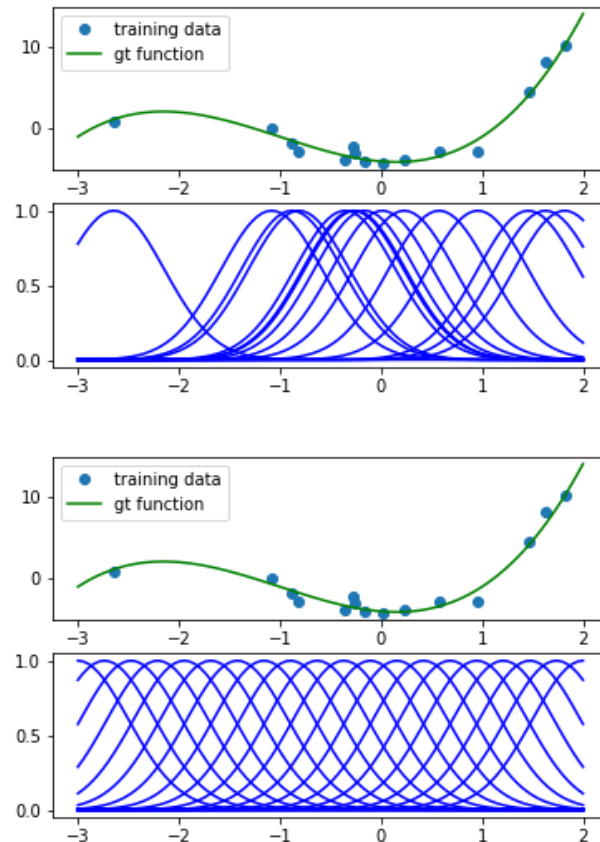
$$f(\mathbf{x}) = \sum_i \alpha_i k(\mathbf{x}_i, \mathbf{x}) = \sum_i \alpha_i \exp\left(-\frac{\|\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{x}_i\|^2}{2\sigma^2}\right)$$

- The kernel allows setting the **centres adaptively to the available data!**
- One centre per data-point

Comparison: Linear regression with radial basis function (RBF) features

$$f(\mathbf{x}) = \sum_i w_i \phi_i(\mathbf{x}) = \sum_i w_i \exp\left(-\frac{\|\mathbf{x} - \boldsymbol{\mu}_i\|^2}{2\sigma^2}\right)$$

$\boldsymbol{\mu}_i \dots i^{\text{th}}$ center location (fixed)



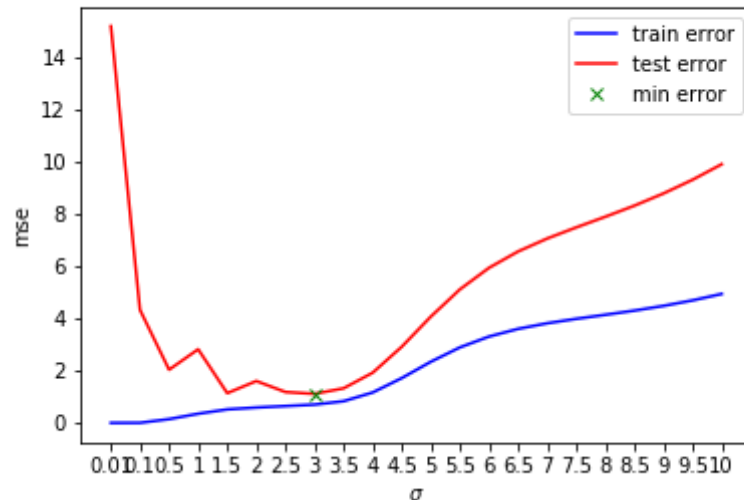
Selecting the hyper-parameters

- The parameters of the kernel, e.g., sigma in

$$k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}) = \exp\left(-\frac{\|\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{y}\|^2}{2\sigma^2}\right)$$

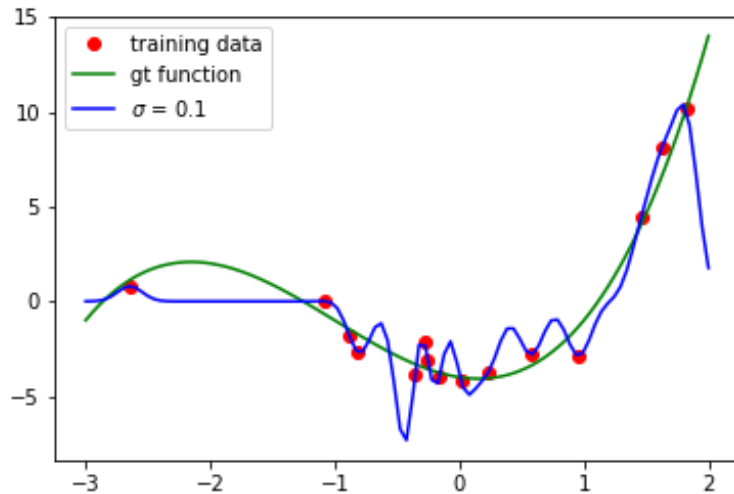
are called **hyper-parameters**.

- Choosing them is a model-selection problem (we need a test set).

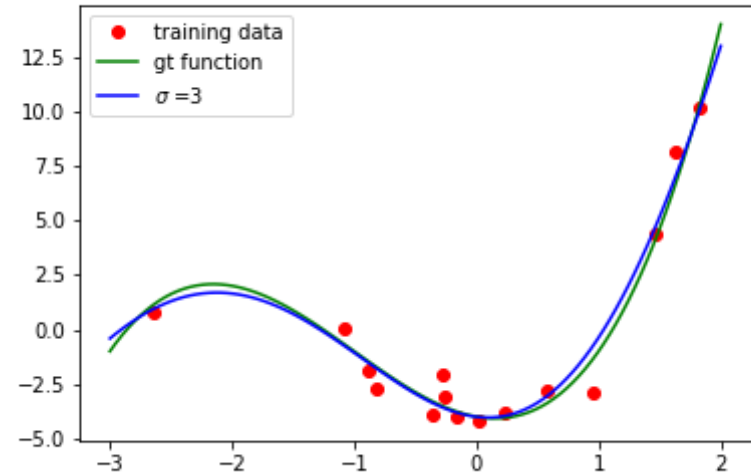


Different bandwidth factors

Overfitting



Good fit



Comparison

- **Ridge Regression**

$$f(\mathbf{x}) = \phi(\mathbf{x})^T \mathbf{w}^* = \phi(\mathbf{x})^T \underbrace{(\Phi^T \Phi + \lambda \mathbf{I})^{-1}}_{d \times d \text{ matrix inversion}} \Phi^T \mathbf{y} = \sum_{i=1}^d w_i \phi_i(\mathbf{x})$$

- Use if $d < N$

- **Kernel Ridge Regression**

$$f(\mathbf{x}) = \phi(\mathbf{x})^T \mathbf{w}^* = \overbrace{\phi(\mathbf{x})^T \Phi}^{k(\mathbf{x})} \underbrace{(\overbrace{\Phi \Phi^T}^K + \lambda \mathbf{I})^{-1}}_{N \times N \text{ matrix inversion}} \mathbf{y} = \sum_{i=1}^N \alpha_i k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}_i)$$

- Use if $N < d$

Summary: Kernel ridge regression

The solution for kernel ridge regression is given by

$$f^*(x) = k(x)^T (\mathbf{K} + \lambda \mathbf{I})^{-1} \mathbf{y}$$

- No evaluations of the feature vectors needed
- Only pair-wise scalar products (evaluated by the kernel)
- Need to invert a $N \times N$ matrix (can be costly)

Note:

- We have to **store all samples** in kernel-based methods (they also belong to the **instance-based** or **non-parametric** methods)
 - **Computationally expensive** (matrix inverse is $O(n^{2.376})$) !
- Hyper-parameters of the method are given by the kernel-parameters
 - Can be optimized on validation-set
- Very **flexible function representation**, only few hyper-parameters

SVMs with Kernels

Support Vector Machines (continued...)

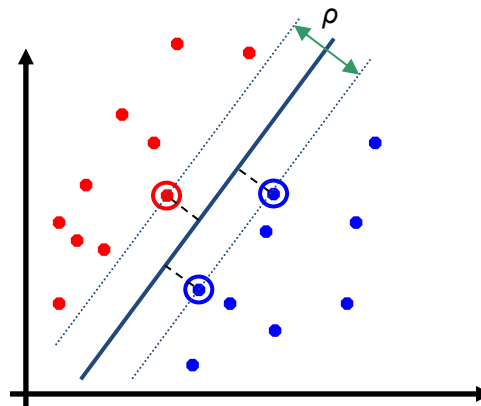
SVMs with features:

- Maximum margin principle
- Slack variables allow for margin violation

$$\begin{aligned} \operatorname{argmin}_{\mathbf{w}, \xi} \quad & \|\mathbf{w}\|^2 + C \sum_i^N \xi_i, \\ \text{s.t.} \quad & y_i(\mathbf{w}^T \phi(\mathbf{x}_i) + b) \geq 1 - \xi_i, \quad \xi_i \geq 0 \end{aligned}$$

- Simpler formulation without slack variables

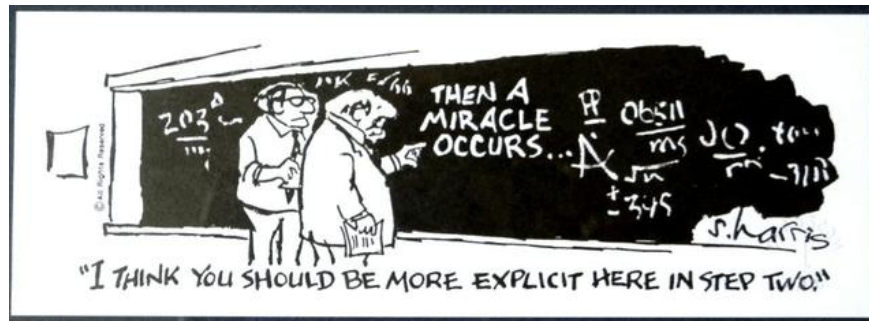
$$\begin{aligned} \operatorname{argmin}_{\mathbf{w}} \quad & \|\mathbf{w}\|^2, \\ \text{s.t.} \quad & y_i(\mathbf{w}^T \phi(\mathbf{x}_i) + b) \geq 1 \end{aligned}$$



In order to apply the **kernel trick**, we need to apply **Constrained Optimization**!

- ... however, we do not have time for going into that
- See RL lecture

Constraint Optimization in SVMs



In constraint optimization, we have to optimize the **dual function**:

$$\lambda^* = \operatorname{argmax}_{\lambda} g(\lambda) = \operatorname{argmax}_{\lambda} \sum_i \lambda_i - \frac{1}{2} \sum_i \sum_j \lambda_i \lambda_j y_i y_j \phi(\mathbf{x}_i)^T \phi(\mathbf{x}_j), \text{ s.t. } \lambda_i > 0$$

- Where λ_i are Lagrangian multipliers
- The weight vector can then be obtained by

$$\mathbf{w}^* = \sum_i \lambda_i y_i \phi(\mathbf{x}_i)$$

We can directly use the kernel trick here

$$g(\lambda) = \sum_i \lambda_i - \frac{1}{2} \sum_i \sum_j \lambda_i \lambda_j y_i y_j \mathbf{k}(\mathbf{x}_i, \mathbf{x}_j)$$

- Scalar products of the feature vectors can be written as kernels, i.e. $k(x_i, x_j) = \phi(x_i)^T \phi(x_j)$

Relaxed constraints with slack

Primal optimization problem:

$$\begin{aligned} \operatorname{argmin}_{\mathbf{w}, \xi} \quad & \|\mathbf{w}\|^2 + C \sum_i^N \xi_i, \\ \text{s.t.} \quad & y_i(\mathbf{w}^T \mathbf{x}_i + b) \geq 1 - \xi_i, \quad \xi_i \geq 0 \end{aligned}$$

Dual optimization problem:

$$\begin{aligned} \max_{\lambda} \quad & \sum_i \lambda_i - \frac{1}{2} \sum_i \sum_j \lambda_i \lambda_j y_i y_j \mathbf{k}(\mathbf{x}_i, \mathbf{x}_j) \\ \text{s.t.} \quad & C \geq \lambda_i \geq 0, \forall i \in [1 \dots N], \quad \sum_i \lambda_i y_i = 0 \end{aligned}$$

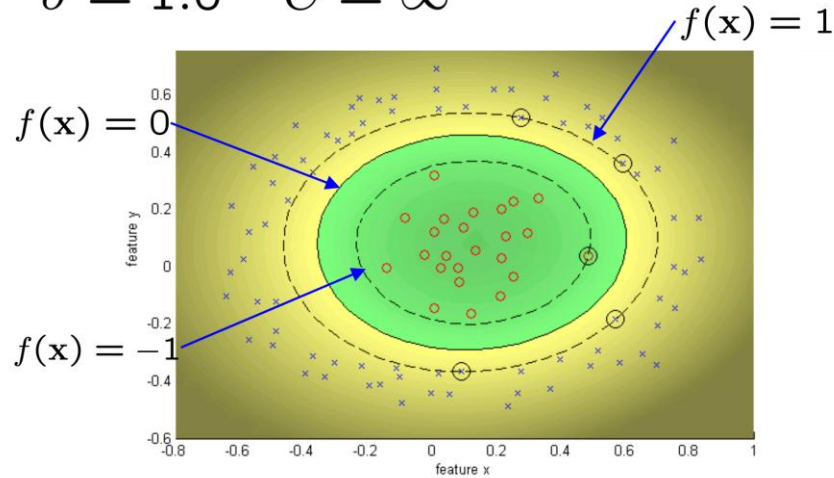
This is a quadratic program

- Quadratic objective, linear constraints
- Efficient solution solvers exists

Example: SVM with RBF kernel

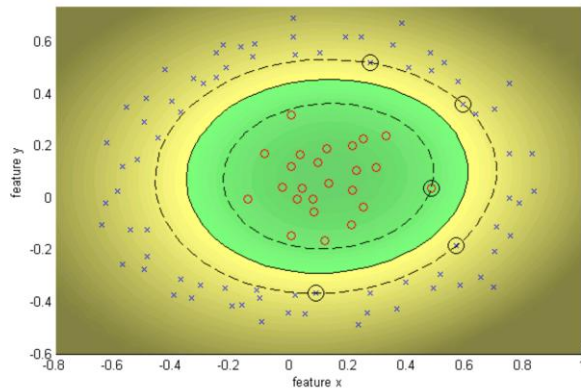
Data is non-linearly separable in original space

$$\sigma = 1.0 \quad C = \infty$$

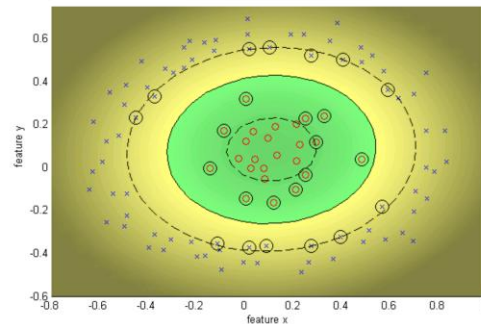


Example: Different Cs

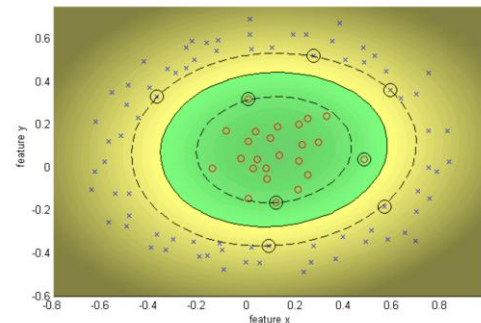
$$\sigma = 1.0 \quad C = \infty$$



$$\sigma = 1.0 \quad C = 10$$

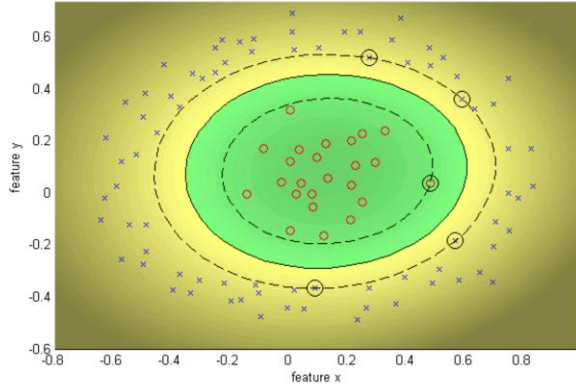


$$\sigma = 1.0 \quad C = 100$$

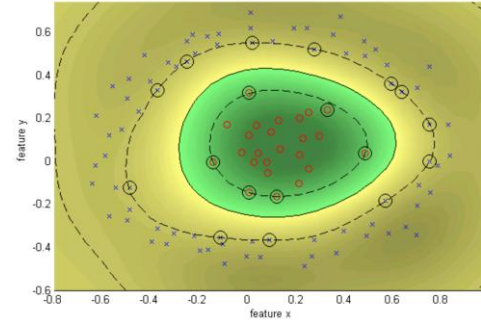


Example: Different sigma

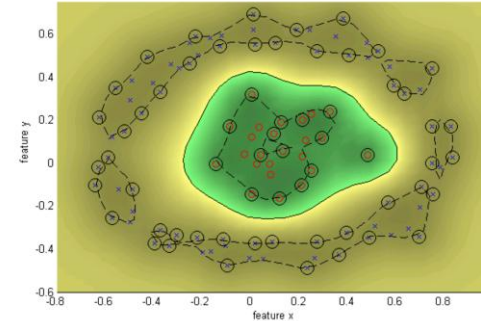
$$\sigma = 1.0 \quad C = \infty$$



$$\sigma = 0.25 \quad C = \infty$$



$$\sigma = 0.1 \quad C = \infty$$



Overfitting

Huge feature space with kernels: should we worry about overfitting?

- SVM objective seeks a solution with large margin
- Theory says that large margin leads to good generalization
- But everything overfits sometimes!!!

Can control overfitting by:

- Setting C (low C $\rightarrow$ smaller Complexity)
 - Choosing a better Kernel
 - Varying parameters of the Kernel (width of Gaussian, etc.)
- 
- Model Selection Problems

Handwritten Digit Classification

US postal service database

- Human performance: 2.5% error

Various learning algorithms (pre-deep learning)

- 16.2%: Decision tree (C4.5)
- 5.9%: 2-layer neural network
- 5.1%: LeNet 1 - 5-layer neural network

Various SVM results

- 4.0%: Polynomial kernel (274 support vectors)
- 4.1%: Gaussian kernel

2601446357146371037714497
1105711124981102160028870
3301033010290403310029012
9405290672910124530299055
5101292018032-70124431064
1161176057188600158701899
1157557212570688227499516
9950572001336272203242370
3307271272313395053880319
1371914119129192511917014
10118134857368032-6414186
6359720299299722510046701
3084114591010615406103631
10641110304332620099966
8912056708557101427955460
10187301871129931089970984
0109707597331972015519065
1073318255182814338090963
1787541655460354603546055
18255108503067520439401

Handwritten Digit Classification

Very little overfitting due to max-margin

degree of polynomial	dimensionality of feature space	support vectors	raw error
1	256	282	8.9
2	≈ 33000	227	4.7
3	$\approx 1 \times 10^6$	274	4.0
4	$\approx 1 \times 10^9$	321	4.2
5	$\approx 1 \times 10^{12}$	374	4.3
6	$\approx 1 \times 10^{14}$	377	4.5
7	$\approx 1 \times 10^{16}$	422	4.5

Recent results

- With more training data, better modeling of invariances, etc.
- Error down to about 0.5% with SVMs and 0.4% with neural networks

Takeaway messages

What have we learned today?

- Kernels estimate the similarity between samples
- They represent an **inner product** in a feature space
 - Allows to use potentially infinite dimensional
 - That's ok due to the kernel trick and regularization
- Many standard ML algorithms can be **“kernelized”**
 - I.e. rewritten in terms of inner products
 - **Regression:** Kernel Ridge regression, Gaussian Processes (to be covered), Support Vector Regression (not covered)
 - **Classification:** SVMs, Kernel Logistic Regression (not covered)
- ✓ **Very flexible representation that adapts to the complexity of the data**
- ✓ **Works well with small data sets**
- × **Hard to scale to more complex (high-D) problems or large datasets**

